
Kernel Normalization for Vision Transformers and Dense Convolutional Networks

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Abstract

1 Most vision learning architectures today rely on BatchNorm or LayerNorm normal-
2 ization. However, the recently proposed KernelNorm was shown to result in higher
3 or equal performance when used in ResNets over BatchNorm, which may be the
4 first instance where a batch-independent normalization method has outperformed
5 BatchNorm at high batch sizes. As KernelNorm can be considered a special case
6 of LayerNorm, it could also be applied to any architecture that uses LayerNorm.
7 Consequently, we look to further investigate the performance of KernelNorm within
8 the CNN architecture and experiment with KernelNorm in ViTs.

9 1 Introduction

10 The standard normalization techniques used in various architectures has remained mostly the same
11 for the last several years. In the vision learning space, vision transformers (ViTs)(Dosovitskiy et al.
12 2021) most commonly use LayerNorm (Ba, Kiros, and Hinton 2016) while convolutional neural
13 networks (CNNs) rely primarily on BatchNorm (Ioffe and Szegedy 2015). However, Nasirigerdeh,
14 R. Torkzadehmahani, et al. (2024) recently proposed KernelNorm, an alternative batch-independent
15 normalization developed to overcome limitations of existing techniques in both private and non-private
16 learning settings.

17 It was demonstrated that a KernelNorm variant of deep residual networks (ResNets) (He et al. 2016)
18 had higher or about equal performance and faster convergence (measured by number of iterations)
19 for semantic segmentation and image classification tasks, compared to several other normalization
20 methods. These benefits come at the cost of longer training and test times, as well as higher memory
21 usage. However, as computing power continues to increase over time, it is important to explore the
22 usage of KernelNorm in other model architectures since KernelNorm may be the first normalization
23 method that has at least equal performance of BatchNorm while keeping all samples in a batch
24 separate.

25 As ViTs and CNNs are both still relevant in the field of vision learning today, we look to expand
26 the understanding of the benefits of KernelNorm within both of these architectures. In particular,
27 firstly we aim to evaluate KernelNorm equivalents of a subset of ViTs, which use primarily use
28 LayerNorm. Although ViTs are vastly different from CNNs, because LayerNorm can be viewed
29 as a special case of KernelNorm, KernelNorm can indeed be applied to transformers. Secondly,
30 we evaluate KernelNorm within a small bottleneck-variant of a Densely Connected Convolutional
31 Network (DenseNet) (Huang, Liu, and Weinberger 2016) architecture. Although DenseNets are
32 not as widely used as other convolution based architectures, they are relevant in a few applications
33 such as medical image analysis (Zhou et al. 2022). As KernelNorm ResNet variants outperformed
34 other normalized counterparts, replacing BatchNorm in DenseNet may also result in performance
35 improvements.

36 Our contributions are summarized as follows: we find that our small kernel normalized ViTs outper-
37 form their typically normalized counterparts, but our small kernel normalized DenseNets performed
38 worse than their BatchNorm counterparts.

2 Related Work

2.1 Normalization Methods

In general, all normalization methods fall into two categories: batch-dependant and batch-independent. Batch-dependant methods have the batch size built into the normalization method. Normalization methods that fall into this category include BatchNorm as well as its derivatives, including batch renormalization (Ioffe 2017) and cross-iteration BatchNorm (Yao, Cao, Zheng, et al. 2020) among others. Batch-Independent methods include LayerNorm (Ba, Kiros, and Hinton 2016), GroupNorm (Wu and He 2018), and InstanceNorm (Ulyanov, Vedaldi, and Lempitsky 2016) among others.

2.2 Normalization in CNNs

BatchNorm is by far the most dominant method of normalization for CNNs. Although other methods outperform BatchNorm in specific situations, such as GroupNorm with low batch sizes (Wu and He 2018) or InstanceNorm for “stylized” images (Ulyanov, Vedaldi, and Lempitsky 2016), no other method has been shown to have the same generalizability as BatchNorm within the context of visual learning with CNNs. It has been shown that KernelNorm ResNet equivalents can have equal or better performance than the BatchNorm counterparts on image classification and image segmentation (Nasirigerdeh, R. Torkzadehmahani, et al. 2024). However, as mentioned by the authors, further experiments must be conducted in other settings and architectures to gain a better understanding of its performance.

2.3 Normalization in ViTs

As ViTs are a more recent development compared to CNNs, the normalization methods are not as well-established. LayerNorm is most commonly in ViTs, but this is partially due to the fact it was inherited from original transformers designed for natural language processing, which must be compatible with inputs of varying lengths. However, ViTs will generally have a fixed input size, so they are not restricted to batch-independent normalization methods. ViT variants with BatchNorm have been explored and have been shown to result in better performance as well as higher training and test throughput, measured in images per second (Yao, Cao, Lin, et al. 2021) (Tang and Xie 2023).

3 KernelNorm and KernelNorm Convolution Layers

KernelNorm (Nasirigerdeh, R. Torkzadehmahani, et al. 2024) is an input batch-independent normalization designed to overcome some of the limitations of BatchNorm. Specifically, BatchNorm does not perform well with small batch sizes (Wu and He 2018; Nasirigerdeh, R. Torkzadehmahani, et al. 2024). Further, it cannot be applied in privacy-preserving settings where samples must remain separate because it is batch-dependant.

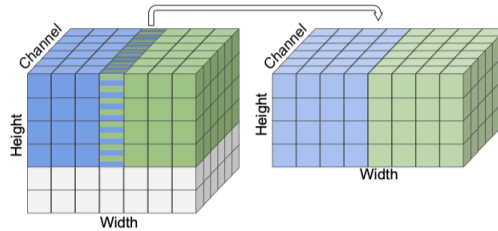


Figure 1: KernelNorm on an input of size $7 \times 7 \times 7$ with kernel size 4, stride 3, and padding 0. Original figure is from Nasirigerdeh, R. Torkzadehmahani, et al. (2024).

KernelNorm is similar to a pooling layer except it normalizes each region specified by the given kernel size, stride, and padding rather than summarizing. Hence, the mean and variance used to normalize each region is calculated by taking into account all channels at once. The key characteristic of KernelNorm is that an input element can contribute multiple times to the output. This means that

75 it takes into account the spatial correlation between input elements. Or in other words, it takes into
76 account the similarities between an input element and the elements within distance equal to the kernel
77 size. This is not possible with other commonly used normalization methods because they induce a
78 one-to-one correspondence between the input and the output.

79 A KernelNorm Convolution (KNConv) layer is a KernelNorm layer followed by a 2D Convolution
80 with kernel size and stride equal to that of the kernel size used for KernelNorm. Nasirigerdeh, R.
81 Torkzadehmahani, et al. (2024) have provided implementations for KernelNorm and KernelNorm
82 Convolution (KNConv) via their GitHub repository, which we incorporate into our own KernelNorm
83 based architectures.

84 4 Kernel Normalized ViTs

85 First, we outline the the structure of ViTs in order to identify the location of the normalization
86 methods within the architecture. As transformers were built for sequential inputs, ViTs first split an
87 input image into “patches” (Vaswani et al. 2017), akin to cutting an image along a grid with scissors,
88 and then flattens it. This image “sequence” is fed through several layers of encoder blocks. Each
89 encoder block is composed of a multi-head attention (MHA) layer and a multilayer perceptron (MLP),
90 each paired with a normalization layer. The most commonly used normalization layer in these blocks
91 is LayerNorm.

92 Initial ViTs were often very sensitive during optimization. However, Xiao et al. (2021) demonstrated
93 that ViTs with a small number of initial convolutions with BatchNorm lead to better optimization
94 stability and and increased performance. This finding was adopted as a standard part of many ViT
95 designs, including the ViT models in the PyTorch library.

96 In order to implement kernel normalized ViTs (KNViTs), we adapt the PyTorch implementation of
97 ViTs (PyTorch 2023) and proceed by first replacing the BatchNorm normalization layer that is applied
98 before the transformer portion of the architecture. This requires only replacing the BatchNorm layer
99 and convolution layer with a single KNConv layer from PyTorch (2023).

100 We next look to modify the standard EncoderBlock. An EncoderBlock takes in an input and performs
101 two normalizations within the block. The input has a batch size of n with s e -dimensional vectors,
102 giving a 3D tensor of shape (n, s, e) , where e is the `hidden_dim` of the ViT.

103 However, KernelNorm requires a 4D input tensor of shape (n, c, h, w) so we cannot use it directly.
104 To solve this, we implemented FlatKernelNorm as a modification of the KernelNorm layer that can
105 handle 3D tensors. In our implementation of FlatKernelNorm we assume that e is a square number
106 so we can reshape the input tensor to $(n, s, \sqrt{e}, \sqrt{e})$. This requires us to restrict our KNViT models
107 to square `hidden_dim`.

108 Recall the design of the original EncoderBlock. If we have an input i , then we have

$$x = i + MHA(LayerNorm(i)),$$

109 followed by

$$y = x + MLP(LayerNorm(x))$$

110 where the output is y . Because the unnormalized i and x are added to their normalized counterparts
111 following the MHA and MLP layers respectively, the shape of the output from FlatKernelNorm must
112 remain the same as the input. Hence, we set the kernel size equal to the stride length. In doing this,
113 note that we induce a one-to-one correspondence between the input and output of the normalization
114 and lose some of the unique spatial correlation properties of KernelNorm.

115 With these modifications to the ViT architecture, we have a kernel normalized KNViT model as
116 outlined in Figure 2. We put forward two KNViT models, named by a similar scheme to those of
117 PyTorch. The KNViT-S-16 is similar to PyTorch’s ViT-B-16 but has 14 heads instead of 12 for the
118 MHA and `hidden_dim` of 784 (28^2) instead of 768. The KNViT-S-8 is the same as the KNViT-S-16
119 but has patch size 8 instead of 16.

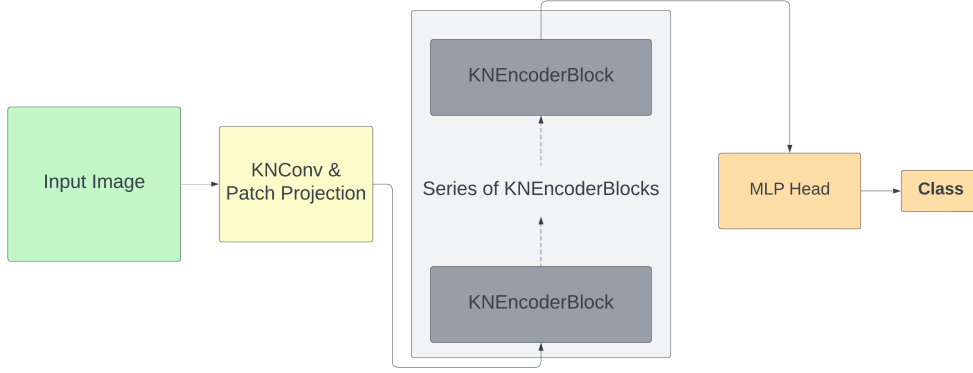


Figure 2: KNViT architecture

5 Kernel Normalized DenseNets

As before, we briefly outline the structure of DenseNets to understand how we can implement KernelNowm into the architecture. The original DenseNets essentially uses a sequence of 3×3 and 1×1 convolutions, each paired with a normalization layer (except the first convolution) and activation layer, followed by the final classification layer. Although DenseNets have several variants, here we only consider the bottleneck variant, as it is much more parameter efficient (Huang, Liu, and Weinberger 2016). The aforementioned convolutions are organized into dense blocks, which have the bottleneck built as a 1×1 convolution before the typical 3×3 convolution, and transition layers, which use a single 1×1 convolution. The resulting structure is somewhat similar to ResNets, but each dense block produces an output that is concatenated to the input rather than summed.

To implement a kernel normalized DenseNet (KNDenseNet), we adapt the implementation of DenseNets from (Veit 2017). We proceed by replacing all of the BatchNorm layers by their Kernel-Norm equivalent. The adapted implementation has the activation layer in between the normalization and convolution layers, so we re-order the layers in order to use the KNConv layer implementations from (Nasirigerdeh, R. Torkzadehmahani, et al. 2024). By replacing the BatchNorm + convolution layer pairs with a single KNConv layer, the resulting architecture is what we name a KNDenseNet.

6 Experiments

6.1 KNViTs

We look to compare our KNViTs with their closest typical ViT counterparts. PyTorch does not have built-in models that are comparable to the size of KNViT-S-8 and KNViT-S-16 with 117 million parameters, with the closest being ViT-B-16 with 87M and ViT-L-16 with 304M. So, we constructed our own two equivalent models ViT-S-8 and ViT-S-16 that have an identical number of parameters to their KernelNorm counterparts. We compared the KNViTs and ViTs on the CIFAR10 dataset.

Data preparation: the data were pre-processed using the same procedure as in (Nasirigerdeh, R. Torkzadehmahani, et al. 2024), where the samples are padded (size 4×4) and then flipped and cropped (with size 32×32).

Training: the models were trained for 100 epochs on batches of size 64, using stochastic gradient descent with momentum 0.9 and an initial learning rate of 0.025. Learning rates were scheduled using cosine annealing.

Results: for both KNViTs and ViTs, we see that patch sizes of 8 outperform patch sizes of 16, as was previously shown by Beyer et al. (2023). It is also apparent that the KNViT models converge faster and achieve higher test accuracy than their counterparts, similar to the findings of Nasirigerdeh, R. Torkzadehmahani, et al. (2024) for KNResNets.

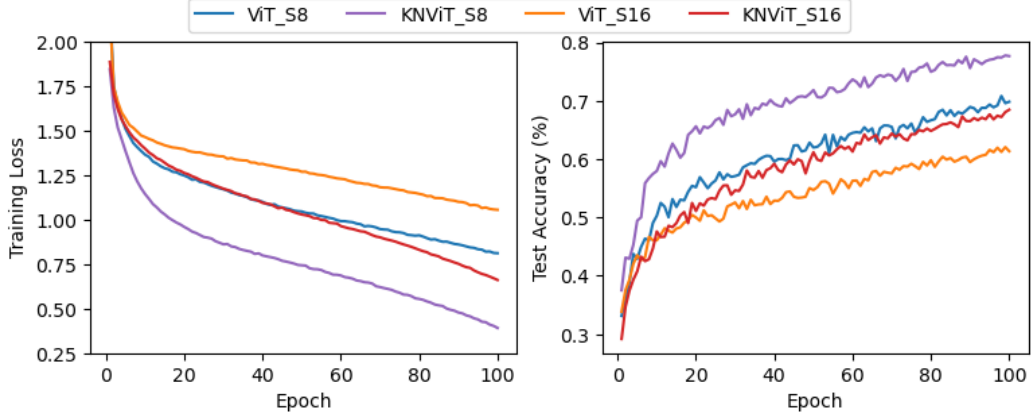


Figure 3: Training loss and test accuracy for 4 small KN/ViTs, with patches of size 8 and 16

153 6.2 KNDenseNets

154 We trained a single bottlenecked and compressed DenseNet (DenseNet-BC) variant for each of
 155 BatchNorm (as in the original implementation), KernelNorm, as well as a mixed norm variation. The
 156 mixed norm variation utilizes KernelNorm for the 3×3 convolution and BatchNorm for the 1×1
 157 convolution, and was developed in attempt to gain a better understanding of the poor performance
 158 of KNDenseNet details below. Due to resource availability, we used a fairly small variation of
 159 DenseNets with depth $L = 40$ and growth rate of $k = 12$.

160 **Data preparation:** the data were pre-processed using the same procedure as in (Nasirigerdeh, R.
 161 Torkzadehmahani, et al. 2024), where the samples are padded (size 4×4) and then flipped and
 162 cropped (with size 32×32).

163 **Training:** we retain the training procedure as used by Huang, Liu, and Weinberger (2016). We train
 164 the models for 300 epochs on batches of size 64 with weight decay of 1×10^{-4} , using stochastic
 165 gradient descent with momentum 0.9 and an initial learning rate of 0.1. Further, at epochs 150 and
 166 225, we set the learning rate manually to 10% of the initial learning rate.

167 **Results:** we see that replacing any BatchNorm normalization layer with KernelNorm resulted in lower
 168 test accuracy. Furthermore, the test accuracy decreases after adjusting the learning rate at epoch 150
 169 for the BatchNorm and mixed norm variants, but this is similar to the behaviour of the test accuracies
 170 in (Huang, Liu, and Weinberger 2016). The KernelNorm variants do however still appear to retain
 171 the property of faster convergence observed in KNResNets (Nasirigerdeh, R. Torkzadehmahani, et al.
 172 2024).

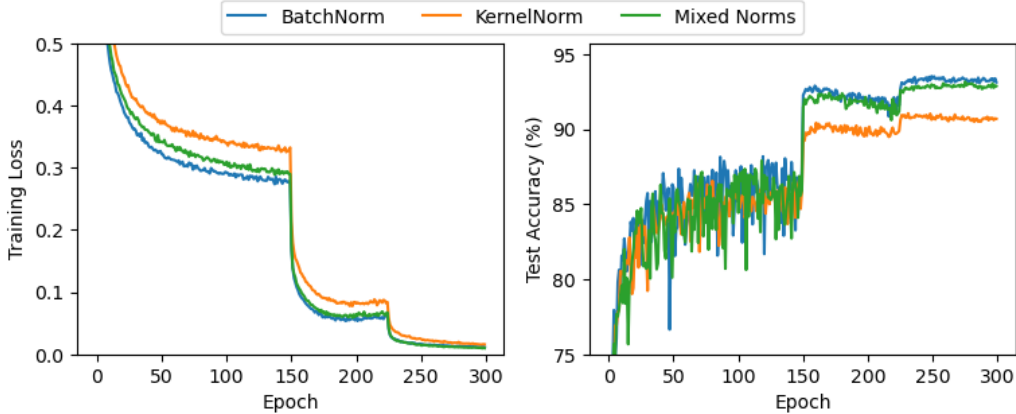


Figure 4: Training loss and test accuracy for BatchNorm, KernelNorm, and mixed norm variants of DenseNet-BC with $k = 12$ and $L = 40$.

7 Discussion

KNViTs showed a significant increase in accuracy compared to the non-kernel normalized variants. Recall the restrictions of equal kernel size and stride for KernelNorm that we imposed when implementing KNViTs, which impaired its ability to incorporate spatial correlation. By further modifying the KNViT architecture in a way that would allow unequal kernel size and stride for KernelNorm, we could potentially see further improvements. Due to the time constraints of the project and limited hardware, we did very little hyper-parameter optimization for KNViTs and ViTs. For the same reasons, we did not test larger scale KNViTs, which could have as many as 632M parameters as in ViT-Huge from (Dosovitskiy et al. 2021). Finally, our results point to potential gains in models based on the ViT architecture, such as Conformers (Gulati et al. 2020).

Contrarily, KNDenseNets performed worse than their BatchNorm counterparts. A potential explanation for this is the bottleneck layers as well as the concatenation aspect of DenseNet. By design, these result in many more changes in the dimensionality of the channels in the input many times as it feeds through the model, and the meaning of spatial correlation becomes slightly more “convoluted.” This partially aligns with the findings in (Nasirigerdeh, R. Torkzadehmahani, et al. 2024), where larger KNResNets with bottleneck layers performed about the same as smaller variants with no bottleneck layers. On the other hand, our findings partially conflict with those of (Nasirigerdeh, J. Torkzadehmahani, et al. 2022), who found that adding KernelNorm to DenseNet in a privacy-preserving setting resulted in higher test accuracy. However, their KNDenseNet implementation used a 3×3 KNConv layer inside the transition layer rather than a 1×1 convolution as in the original DenseNet, which would result in a higher number of parameters and thus may be the underlying reason for the increase in performance.

In conclusion, we suggest a more thorough analysis of the KernelNorm models presented here, including hyperparameter tuning and method of implementation, especially for KNViTs which do not currently utilize KernelNorm to its full extent in the forms presented here. Future work could also involve experimenting with higher resolution datasets where KernelNorm’s ability to incorporate spatial correlation may be more impactful. Lastly, as we were highly limited by computational resources, scaling up the models could also provide a more accurate understanding of their potential.

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